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PREFACE TO MOTIVATION THEORY

A. H. MASLOW*

In this paper are presented thirteen propositions about motivation which must be incorporated into any sound motivation theory. Some of these propositions are so true as to be platitudinous to some. These I feel need reemphasis. Others may be found less acceptable and more debatable.

I

Our first proposition states that the individual is an integrated, organized whole. This theoretical statement is usually accepted piously enough by psychologists who then often proceed calmly to ignore it in their actual experiments. That it is an experimental reality as well as a theoretical one must be realized before sound experimentation and sound motivation theory are possible. In motivation theory this proposition means many specific things. For instance, it means the whole individual is motivated rather than just a part of him. In good theory there is no such entity as a need of the stomach or mouth, or a genital need. There is only a need of the individual. It is John Smith who wants food, not John Smith's stomach. Furthermore satisfaction comes to the whole individual and not just to a part of him. Food satisfies John Smith's hunger and not his stomach's hunger.

Dealing with John Smith's hunger as a function merely of his gastro-intestinal tract has made experimenters neglect the fact that when an individual is hungry he changes not only in his gastro-intestinal functions, but in many, perhaps even in most other functions of which he is capable. His perceptions change (he will perceive food more readily than he will at other times). His memories change (he is more apt to remember a good meal at this time than at other times). His emotions change (he is more tense and "nervous" than he is at other times). The content of his thinking changes (he is more apt to think of getting food than of solving an algebraic problem). And this list can be extended to almost every other faculty, capacity, or function, both physiological and psychic. In other words when John Smith is hungry, he is hungry all over; he is different *as an individual* from what he is at other times.

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II

The choice of hunger as a paradigm for all other motivational states is both theoretically and practically unwise and unsound. It can be seen upon closer analysis that the hunger drive is more a special case of motivation than a general one. It is more isolated (using this word as it is used by the Gestalt and holistic psychologists) than other motivations; it is less common than other motivations; and finally it is different from other motivations in that it has a known somatic base which is unusual for motivational states. What are the more common immediate motivations? We can find these easily enough by introspecting during the course of an average day. The desires that fit through consciousness are most often desires for clothes, automobiles, friendliness, company, praise, prestige, and the like. Customarily these have been phrased as secondary or cultural drives and have been regarded as of a different order from the truly "respectable" or primary drives, i.e., the physiological needs. In actuality these are far more important for us and they are far more common. It would therefore be well to make one of them paradigm rather than the hunger drive.

The common assumption has been that all drives will follow the example set by the physiological drives. It is fair to predict now that this will never be. Most drives are not isolable, nor can they be localized somatically, nor can they be considered as if they were the only things happening in the organism at the time. The typical drive or need or desire is not and probably never will be related to a specific, isolated, localized somatic base. The typical desire is much more obviously a need of the whole person. It would be far better to take as a model for research, let us say, such a drive as the desire for money rather than the sheer hunger drive, or, even better, rather than any partial goal, a more fundamental one, like the desire for love. Considering all the evidence now in hand, it is probably true that we could never understand fully the need for love no matter how much we might know about the hunger drive. Indeed a stronger statement is possible, namely, that from a full knowledge of the need for love we can learn more about general human motivation (including the hunger drive)

than we could from a thorough study of the hunger drive.

It is well in this connection to recall the critical analysis of the concept of "simplicity" that has been made so often by the Gestalt psychologists.¹ The hunger drive, which seems "simple" when compared with the drive for love, is actually not so simple in the long run. The appearance of simplicity can be obtained by selecting isolated cases, activities that are relatively independent of the wholeness of the organism. An important activity can easily be shown to have dynamic relationships with almost everything else of importance in the person. Why then take an activity that is *not* at all average in this sense, an activity which is selected out for special attention only because it is easier to deal with by our customary (but not necessarily correct) experimental technique of isolation, reduction, or of independence from other activities. If we are faced with the choice of dealing with either (one), experimentally simple problems that are however trivial or invalid, or (two), experimental problems that are fearfully difficult but important, we should certainly not hesitate to choose the latter.

III

If we examine carefully the average desires that we have in daily life, we find that they have at least one important characteristic, i.e., that they are usually means to an end rather than ends in themselves. We want money so that we may have an automobile. In turn we want an automobile because the neighbors have one and we wish not to feel inferior to them so that we can retain our own self-respect and so that we can be loved and respected by others. Usually when a conscious desire is analyzed we find that we can go "behind" it, so to speak, to other, more fundamental aims of the individual. In other words, we have here a situation which parallels very much the role of symptoms in psychopathology. The symptoms are important, not so much in themselves, but for what they ultimately mean, that is, for what their ultimate goals or effects are, for what they are trying to do, or for what their functions may be. The study of symptoms in themselves is quite unimportant, but the study of the dynamic meaning of symptoms is important because it is fruitful—for instance, making possible psycho-

¹ See the writings of Wertheimer, Koffka, Goldstein, Kohler, Lewin.

therapy. The particular desires which pass through our consciousness dozens of times a day are not in themselves so important as what they stand for, where they lead to, what they ultimately mean upon deeper analysis.

It is characteristic of this deeper analysis that it will always lead ultimately to certain goals or needs behind which we cannot go; that is, to certain goals which seem to be ends in themselves and which seem not to need any further justification or demonstration. These goals have the particular quality of not being seen directly very often but of being a kind of conceptual derivation from the multiplicity of specific conscious desires.² In other words then, the study of motivation must be in part the study of the ultimate human goals or desires.

These facts imply another necessity for sound motivation theory. Since these goals are not often seen directly in consciousness, we are at once forced into the necessity of dealing with the whole problem of unconscious motivation. Careful study of the conscious motivational life alone will often leave out much that is as important or even more important than what can be seen in consciousness. Psychoanalysis has often demonstrated that the relationship between a conscious desire and the ultimate unconscious aim which underlies it need not be at all direct. Indeed the relationship may actually be a negative one, as in reaction formations. We may then assert that sound motivation theory cannot possibly afford to neglect the unconscious life.

IV

There is now sufficient anthropological evidence to indicate that the fundamental or ultimate desires of all human beings do not differ nearly as much as do their conscious everyday desires. The main reason for this is that two different cultures may provide two completely different ways of satisfying a particular desire, let us say, for self-esteem. In one society one obtains self-esteem by being a good hunter; in another society by being a great medicine man or a bold warrior, or a very unemotional person and so on. It may then be that, if we think of ultimates, the one individual's desire

² This is not always so. Sometimes these fundamental desires, e.g., for love, for safety, for self-esteem can be seen directly, but this requires rather unusual circumstances and the use of special techniques, such as free-association, dream interpretation and the like.

to be a good hunter has the same dynamics and the same fundamental aim as the desire of the other individual to be a good medicine man. We may then assert that it would be more useful for psychologists to combine these two seemingly disparate conscious desires into the same category rather than to put them into different categories on purely behavioral grounds. Apparently ends-in-themselves are far more universal than the roads taken to achieve those ends, for these roads are determined locally in the specific culture.

This is not to imply that it is yet possible to make any list of ultimate goals that is universal for the whole human species. For all we know such a universal list may never be found. What is implied is only that there is more approach to this universality in a list of fundamental, unconscious goals than there is in any list of conscious, specific desire that it is possible to make.

V

We have learned from the study of psychopathology that a conscious desire or a motivated behavior has another peculiarity which is allied to the one we have just discussed, viz., **that it may serve as a kind of channel through which other purposes may express themselves. There are several ways of showing this.** For instance, it is well known that sexual behavior and conscious sexual desires may be tremendously complex in their underlying, unconscious purposes. In one individual sexual desire may actually mean the desire to assure himself of his masculinity. It may in other individuals represent fundamentally a desire to impress, or a desire for closeness, friendliness, for safety, for love or for any combination of these. Consciously the sexual desire in all these individuals may have the same content and probably all of them would make the mistake of thinking that they seek only sexual gratification. But we now know that this is not correct, that it is useful in understanding these individuals to deal with what the sexual desire and behavior represent fundamentally rather than what the individual consciously thinks they represent. (This holds true for either preparatory or consummatory behavior.)

Another line of evidence supporting this same point is the finding that a single psychopathological symptom may represent at one and the same time several different, even opposing desires. An hysterically paralyzed arm may represent the

fulfillment of simultaneous wishes for revenge, for pity, for love, and for respect. To take either the conscious wish in the first example or the overt symptom in the second in a purely behavioral fashion means that we arbitrarily throw out the possibility of a total understanding of the behavior and of the motivational state of the individual. Let us emphasize that it is unusual, not unusual that an act or a conscious wish has but one motivation.

VI

In a certain sense almost any organismic state of affairs whatsoever is in itself also a motivating state. If we say that a person feels rejected, what do we mean? A static psychology would be content to put a period to this statement. But a dynamic psychology would imply very many more things by this statement with full empirical justification. Such a feeling has repercussions throughout the whole organism both in its somatic and psychic aspects. For instance, it means also tension and strain and unhappiness. Furthermore, quite apart from the current relationships with the rest of the organism, such a state of affairs automatically and of necessity leads to many other happenings, e.g., compulsive desires to win back affection; defensive efforts of various kinds, piling up of hostility, etc.

It is clear then, that we will explain the state of affairs implied in the statement, "This person feels rejected," only if we add many, many more statements about what happens to him because he feels rejected. In other words, the feeling of rejection is itself a motivating state. Current conceptions of motivation proceed ordinarily, or at least seem to proceed, on the assumption that a motivational state is a special, a peculiar state, qualitatively different from the other happenings in the organism. Sound motivational theory should, on the contrary, assume that motivation is constant, never ending, fluctuating and complex, and that it is a universal characteristic of practically every organismic state of affairs.

VII

Man is a wanting animal and rarely reaches a state of complete satisfaction except for a short time. As one desire is satisfied, another one pops up to take its place. When this is satisfied, still another comes into the foreground, etc. It is a characteristic of the human being throughout

his whole life that he is practically always desiring something. We are faced then with the necessity for studying the relationships of all the motivations to each other and we are concomitantly faced with the necessity of giving up the motivational units in isolation if we are to achieve the broad understanding that we seek for. The appearance of the drive or desire, actions that it arouses, and the satisfaction that comes from attaining the goal object, all taken together give us only an artificial, isolated, single instance taken out of the total complex of the motivational life of the organism. When motivation is studied in this way there would seem to be a beginning and an end, and the total motivational life could too easily be assumed to be an atomistic sum of many such isolated individual units. Actually this is not so. The appearance, satisfaction, or non-satisfaction of any such motivational unit practically always depends upon the state of satisfaction or dissatisfaction of all other motivations that the total organism may have. It depends for its very appearance on the fact that such and such other prepotent desires have attained states of relative satisfaction. The wanting anything in itself implies already existing satisfactions of other wants. We should never have the desire to compose music or create mathematical systems, or to adorn our homes, or to be well dressed if our stomachs were empty most of the time, or if we were continually dying of thirst, or if we were continually threatened by an always impending catastrophe, or if everyone hated us.³

Proper respect has never been paid by the constructors of motivation theories to either of these facts: first, that the human being is never satisfied except in a relative or one-step-along-the-path fashion, and secondly, that wants seem to arrange themselves in some sort of hierarchy of prepotency.

VIII

We should give up the attempt once and for all to make atomistic lists of drives. For several different reasons such lists are theoretically unsound. First of all they imply an equality of the various drives that are listed, an equality of potency and probability of appearance. This is incorrect because the probability of any one desire emerging into consciousness depends upon the

state of satisfaction or dissatisfaction of other prepotent desires. There are great differences of the probability of appearance of the various particular drives.

Secondly such a listing implies an isolatedness of each of these drives from each of the others. Of course they are not isolated in any such fashion.

Thirdly such a listing of drives, since it is usually made on the behavioral basis neglects completely all that we know about the dynamic nature of drives, e.g., that their conscious and unconscious aspects may be different, that a particular desire may actually be a channel through which several other desires express themselves, etc.

Such listings are foolish also because drives do not range themselves in an arithmetical sum of isolated, discrete members. They arrange themselves rather in a hierarchy of specificity. What is meant by this is that the number of drives one chooses to list depends entirely on the degree of specificity with which one chooses to analyze them. The true picture is not one of a great many sticks lying side by side, but rather of a nest of boxes in which one box contains three others, and in which each of these three contain ten others, and in which each of these ten contain fifty others, and so on. Or another analogy might be that of a description of a histological section under various degrees of magnification. Thus we can speak of a need for gratification or equilibrium; or more specifically of a need to eat; or still more specifically of a need to fill the stomach; or still more specifically of a desire for proteins, or still more specifically of a desire for a particular protein; and so on. Too many of the listings that we now have available have combined indiscriminately needs at various levels of magnification. With such a confusion it is understandable that some lists should contain three or four needs and others contain hundreds of needs. If we wished, we could have such a list of drives contain anywhere from one to one million drives, depending entirely on the specificity of analysis. Furthermore, it should be clearly understood that if we attempt to discuss the fundamental desires they should be clearly understood as sets of desires, as fundamental categories or collections of desires. In other words, such an enumeration of fundamental goals would be an abstract classification rather than a cataloguing list.⁴

³ We neglect here the complex problem of why such desires may actually arise as a compensation or a coping response to threat, rejection, or catastrophe.

⁴ Many more critical statements could be made here if this paper were to be definitive. For instance we could point out that all the lists of drives that have

IX

The weight of evidence now available seems to me to indicate that the only sound fundamental basis upon which any classification of motivational life may be constructed is that of the fundamental goals or needs rather than on any listing of drives in the ordinary sense of instigation (the "pulls" rather than the "pushes"). It is only the fundamental goal that remains constant through all the fluctuations and interchangeability of meanings that a dynamic approach forces upon psychological theorizing. Considerations that we have already discussed should support this statement without much further proof. Certainly motivated behavior is not a good basis for classification, since we have seen that it may express many things. The specific goal object is not a good basis for classification for the same reason. A human being having a desire for food, then behaving in the proper fashion to get it and then chewing and eating it may actually be seeking for safety rather than for food. An individual going through the whole process of sexual desire, courting behavior and consummatory love making may actually be seeking self-esteem rather than sexual gratification. The drive as it appears introspectively in consciousness, the motivated behavior and even the explicit, apparent goal objects or effects sought for are none of them a sound foundation on which to base a dynamic classification of the motivational life of the human being. If only by the process of logical exclusion alone we are finally left with the largely unconscious fundamental goals or needs as the only sound foundation for classification in motivation theory.⁶

ever been published seem to imply mutual exclusiveness among the various drives. But there is no mutual exclusiveness. There is usually such an overlapping that it is almost impossible to separate quite clearly and sharply any one drive from any other. It should also be pointed out in any critique of drive theory that the very concept of drive itself probably emerges from a preoccupation with the physiological needs. It is very easy in dealing with these needs to separate the instigation, the motivated behavior and the goal object. But it is not easy to distinguish the drive from the goal object when we talk of a desire for love. Here the drive, the desire, the goal object, the activity seem all to be the same thing. It is my opinion that we shall eventually develop a new vocabulary in the field of motivation theory. And I doubt that the concept of drive will be found useful enough to be retained.

⁶ See "Explorations in Personality" by Murray and others for fuller discussion of some of these points.

X

The academic psychologists have relied largely on animal experimentation in working in the field of motivation.⁶ It is a truism to say that a white rat is not a human being, but unfortunately it is necessary to say it again since too often the results of animal experiments are considered basic data on which we must base our theorizing of human nature.⁷ Animal data certainly can be of the utmost importance but only when they are used cautiously and wisely.

There are certain further considerations which are pertinent to my contention that motivation theory must be anthropocentric rather than animalcentric. First let us discuss the concept of instinct. It should be clearly pointed out that as we go up the phylogenetic scale there is a steady trend toward disappearance of the instincts no matter how we define them.⁸ For instance, in the white rat it is fair to say that, by our definition, there are found the hunger instinct, the sex instinct, the maternal instinct. In the monkey the sexual instinct has definitely disappeared, the hunger instinct has clearly been modified in various ways and only the maternal instinct is undoubtedly present. In the human being, by our definition, they have all three disappeared, leaving in their place conglomerations of hereditary reflexes, hereditary drives, autogenous learning and cultural learning in the motivated behavior and in the choice of goal objects. Thus if we examine the sexual life of the human being we find that sheer drive itself is given by heredity but that the choice of object and the choice of behavior must be acquired or learned in the course of the life history.

⁶ See for instance "Motivation of Behavior" by P. T. Young.

⁷ For instance Young arbitrarily excluded the concept of purpose or goal from motivation theory because we cannot ask a rat for his purpose: Is it necessary to point out that we can ask a human being for his purpose? Instead of rejecting purpose or goal as a concept because we cannot ask the rat about it, it would seem much more sensible to reject the rat *because* we cannot ask him about his purpose.

⁸ We can define an instinct rigidly as a motivational unit in which the drive, motivated behavior and the goal object or the goal effect are all determined by heredity. But even if we define instinct in any other way we still are faced with the fact that motivation in the rat and motivation in the human being are different in that hereditary forces play a much larger role in the rat.

As we go up the phylogenetic scale appetites become more and more important and hungers less and less important. That is to say there is much less variability, for instance, in the choice of food in the white rat than there is in the monkey, and there is less variability in the monkey than there is in the human being.⁹

Finally as we go up the phylogenetic scale and as the instincts drop away there is more and more dependence upon the culture as an adaptive tool. If then we have to use animal data let us realize these facts and, for instance, let us prefer the monkey to the white rat as a subject for motivation experiments if only for the simple reason that we human beings are much more like monkeys than we are like white rats.

XI

So far I have spoken only of the nature of the organism itself. It is now necessary to say at least a word about the field or environment in which the organism finds itself. We must certainly grant at once that human motivation rarely actualizes itself in behavior except in relation to the situation and to other people. Any theory of motivation must of course take account of this fact, including not only in the field but also in the organism itself, the role of cultural determination.

Once this is granted it remains to caution the theorizer against too great preoccupation with the exterior, with the culture, the environment, the situation or the field. Our central object of study here is, after all, the organism or the character structure. It is easy to go to the extreme in field theory or situation theory of making the organism just one additional object in the field, equivalent with perhaps a barrier, or some object which he tries to obtain. We must remember that the individual partly creates his field, his barriers and his objects of value, that they must be defined partially in terms set by the particular organism in the field. I know of no way of defining or describing a field universally in such a way that this description can be independent of the particular organism functioning within it. It certainly must be pointed out that a child who is trying to attain a certain object of value to him but who is restrained by a barrier of some sort determines not only that the object is of value,

but also that the barrier is a barrier. Psychologically there is no such thing as a barrier; there is only a barrier-for-a-particular-person-who-is-trying-to-get-something-that-he-wants.¹⁰

Sound motivation theory must then take account of the field or situation, but must never become pure situation or field theory; that is, unless we are explicitly willing to give up our search for an understanding of the nature of the constancy of the organism in favor of understanding the world it lives in.

To avoid unnecessary argument, let me stress that this paper is concerned not with behavior theory but with motivation theory. Behavior is determined by several classes of determinants, of which motivation is one and field forces another. The study of motivation does not negate or deny the study of field determinants, but rather supplements it. They both have their places in a larger structure.

XII

Any motivation theory must take account not only of the fact that the organism behaves ordinarily as an integrated whole, but also of the fact that sometimes it does not. There are specific isolated conditionings and habits to account for, segmental responses of various kinds and a host of phenomena of dissociation and lack of integration that we know about. The organism furthermore can

¹⁰ It is my impression that extreme or exclusive situation theory flourishes best when it is based upon what I have called above inadequate theories of motivation. For instance any purely behavioral theory needs situation theory to give it any sense at all. A motivation theory that is based upon existing drives rather than upon goals or desires also needs a strong situation theory if it is not to fall. However, a theory that stresses constant fundamental goals finds them to be relatively constant and more independent of the particular situation in which the organism finds itself. For not only does the goal organize its action possibilities, so to speak, in the most efficient way feasible and with a great deal of variation, but it also organizes and even creates the external reality. Another way of saying this is, if we accept Koffka's distinction between the geographical and psychological environment, that the only satisfactory way of understanding how a geographical environment becomes a psychological environment is to understand that the principle of organization of the psychological environment is the current goal of the organism in that particular environment.

⁹ MASLOW, A. H.: Appetites and hungers in animal motivation. *J. Comp. Psychol.*, 10: 75, 1935.

even react in a non-unitary fashion in daily life as when we do many things at the same time.

Apparently the organism is most unified in its integration when it is successfully facing a major problem or a threat or emergency. But when the threat is overwhelming or when the organism is too weak or helpless to manage it, it tends to disintegrate. On the whole when life is easy and successful the organism can simultaneously do many things and turn in many directions.

It is my belief that a fair share of the phenomena that seem to be specific and isolated actually are not. Often it is possible to demonstrate with deeper analysis that they take a meaningful place in the whole structure, e.g., conversion hysterical symptoms. This apparent lack of integration may sometimes be simply a reflection of our own ignorance, but we also know enough now to be sure that isolated, segmental or unintegrated responses are possible under certain circumstances. Furthermore it is now becoming more and more clear that such phenomena are not necessarily to be regarded as weak or bad or pathological. Rather they are often to be regarded as evidence of one of the most important capacities of the organism, viz., to deal with unimportant or with familiar or with easily conquered problems in a partial, specific, or segmental fashion so that the main capacities of the organism are still left free for the more important or more challenging problems that it faces.¹¹

SUMMARY

1. The integrated wholeness of the organism must be reemphasized.

2. We should not take a localizable, somatic, partial drive as paradigm for motivation theory.

3. The study of motivation should stress ultimate rather than partial goals, ends rather than means to ends. a) not only conscious but also unconscious motivations must be accounted for in a theory of motivation.

4. There are, customarily, different cultural paths to the same goal. Therefore, conscious, specific, local desires are not so useful for motivation theory as fundamental, unconscious goals.

5. Motivated behavior, either preparatory or consummatory, must be understood to be a channel through which many needs may be expressed or satisfied. Usually acts have more than one motivation.

¹¹ See the writings of Kurt Goldstein.

6. Practically all organismic states are to be understood as motivated.

7. Man is a perpetually wanting animal; the appearance of a need rests on prior situations, on other prepotent needs; needs or desires must be arranged in hierarchies of prepotency.

8. Lists of drives will get us no place for various reasons. Any classification of motivations must deal with the problem of level or specificity of classification.

9. Classifications of motivations must be based upon goals rather than upon instigating drives.

10. Motivation theory must be anthropocentric, not animalcentric.

11. The situation or the field in which the organism reacts must be taken into account but it must be done with a dynamic interpretation of the situation or the field.

12. Not only the integration of the organism must be taken into account but also the possibility of isolated, specific, partial or segmental responses must also be included.¹²

¹² The theory of human motivation to which the foregoing paper is a preface may be briefly summarized as follows: There is a hierarchy of five sets of goals or purposes or needs which are set in the following order of prepotency. First, satisfaction or gratification of body needs; the basic physiological and sensual gratifications. Second, the safety needs—insurance against pain, against danger to life, against jeopardy of bodily integrity, against overwhelming threats. There is usually a further component in this desire for safety in that it implies a world that can be counted on, that is familiar, and that is manageable. In a word, a world that does not threaten and that is not dangerous. Third, love, affection, warmth, acceptance, a place in the group. Fourth, desire for self-esteem, self-respect, self-confidence, for the feeling of strength or adequacy. Since this is partially a product of the respect of other people we may add also as partial goals prestige, respect from other people, etc. Fifth, self-actualization, self-fulfillment, self-expression, working out of one's own fundamental personality, the fulfillment of its potentialities, the use of its capacities, the tendency to be the most that one is capable of being. In addition, the individual will tend to want and to strive for all the conditions which make these satisfactions possible, e.g., freedom, full information, justice, order, etc.

We can describe these briefly by speaking of the fundamental goals of gratification, safety, love, self-esteem, and self-actualization. The first is prepotent over the second, which is prepotent over the third, which is prepotent over the fourth, which is prepotent over the fifth. This statement of prepotency

is a statement of average findings in a large sampling of our population. This prepotency means primarily that where all the wants are unsatisfied, the one that will tend to dominate consciousness and behavior will be the search for gratification. It is often found further that a person with all the wants unsatisfied is actually not aware of having any wants other than the physiological wants. He has only the main conscious goals of getting food, water, and most often makes the naive assumption that if he is satisfied in these wants he will then be happy and contented. But this is not so. When the most dominant want is satisfied, a new one emerges into consciousness, usually the next higher in the hierarchy of prepotency. If this second want is satisfied then a third want appears from nowhere. Ordinarily the satisfaction of these wants are not altogether mutually exclusive but are so only as a matter of degree. The average member of our society is probably partially satisfied and partially dissatisfied in all of his wants. The hierarchy principle is then observable in terms of increasing percentages of dissatisfaction as we go up the hierarchy. There has been

observed in some individuals exceptions to the average hierarchy, or reversals of order. It has also been observed that it is possible for an individual to lose the higher wants in the hierarchy, i.e., level of aspiration may be impaired in a permanent way. The apparent exceptions that are found in neurotic individuals or in individuals with a very strong super-ego can be resolved by various ad hoc hypotheses. This theory may be expressed in a simplified way by such aphorisms as "Man lives not by bread alone—except when his stomach is empty." "The search for love is not a main motivation—except in rejected people." "Sex is not a fundamental motivation—for those who are sexually satisfied," etc.

Such a theory of motivation, while it has not been explicitly stated as such, seems to me to be entirely implicit in a synthesis of the Wertheimer type of gestalt psychology, the Goldstein type of organismic theory, and the Fromm-Rado-Horney-Kardiner type of psychoanalytic theory. This theory is presented in full in Maslow, A. H., "A dynamic theory of motivation." *Psychol. Rev.*, 1943 (in press).